

The Planner in the Garden: A Historical View into the Relationship between Planning and Community Gardens

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A historical review of community garden programs in the United States since the 1890s reveals an ambivalent relationship between community gardens and the planning profession. On one hand, garden programs are praised and supported as local action to serve environmental, social, and individual objectives. On the other hand, because they are perceived as opportunistic and temporary, community gardens are largely ignored in long-range planning. Socially constructed as public catalyst and private resource, community gardens illustrate unresolved tensions between planning as a profession and as a civic concern and between comprehensive planning and interim, local interventions.

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To provide land for communal gardening in cities sounds like a simple idea with obvious results. The mind's eye conjures the visual image of an open piece of land that has been subdivided into plots for individuals and households to garden for food and flowers. Indeed, this idea has found support time and again, resulting in a series of garden programs since the 1890s. Although a simple idea, community gardening challenges some basic concepts in urban planning. While city planners and officials have encouraged, benignly ignored, and discouraged community gardens, their actions are conditioned by public attitudes about gardening, participation, and urban development. On one hand, gardens receive praise as illustrations of local action to serve environmental, social, and personal needs. On the other hand, support is based on the assumption that gardens are temporary opportunities and rarely included in long-range planning considerations.

The ambivalence toward community gardens—as beneficial but not necessarily permanent—is illustrated in the ongoing effort to legitimize gardens as neighborhood open space in development-driven New York City. The city has a thirty-year track record of support, with such programs as

Operation GreenThumb that was established by the city in 1978 to administer community gardens and issue interim leases for gardens on city-owned property. Nevertheless, this support was limited through short-term lease arrangements because of concerns over participant commitment and lost opportunity if property values rise.¹ In 1999, city officials announced that 115 of the 700 community gardens that were on city properties were to be auctioned. Garden advocates used editorials, newspaper articles, and demonstrations to raise awareness of the threat to important neighborhood open space. Mayor Giuliani countered that community gardens were never intended to be permanent and that they represented an outdated, communistic land use.² In this case, court proceedings and a last-minute purchase by the Trust for Public Land and New York Restoration Project protected most of the threatened gardens. However, the status of other gardens in New York City remains insecure. Although everyone loves to hear stories of gardeners transforming dangerous vacant lots in drug-infested neighborhoods into lush gardens, ironically, such improvements to a neighborhood may contribute to attracting development. While the garden may represent an important step in community activism to improve the neighborhood, this effort may also lead to loss of the garden site to a "higher and better use," particularly when gentrification is imminent.

Confusion over the status of community gardens may be due to the conflation of the garden as both place and action that carries associated meanings far beyond simple cultivation.³ Community gardens usually develop on vacant or underutilized land as places that participants cultivate and maintain. While some gardens are laid out strictly for utilitarian distribution of plots, others serve as *de facto* parks with lawns, picnic areas, and play equipment. Through the provision of gardening space, participants not only enjoy the opportunity to grow plants but often voice satisfactions related to other personal and social needs.⁴ This enjoyment often extends outward to encourage others through demonstration areas and educational programs that teach about gardening, ecology, and cultural traditions. The general assumption is that community gardens are "grassroots" efforts that are started by neighbors and local activists; however, many projects rely on support from federal, state, and municipal programs and special interest groups that may or may not have connections to the neighborhood. Often, these partners frame community gardening in the context of serving larger social, economic, or environmental objectives. The simple concept to provide a place for communal gardening can be obscured behind agendas that the garden facilitates, such as environmental restoration and community development. Because the success of many gardens relies on reaching out to a broad base of supporters, a complex web of influences determines the process of garden creation as well as its sustainability over time.

The coevolution of community garden programs and planning through the twentieth century provides insights into not only the justifications for garden programs but also the normative underpinnings of the planning pro-

fession. Precedents for ambiguous policies toward community gardens date back to the beginning of the planning.⁵ The precarious status of community gardens illustrates not only the conflation of social reform agendas and environmental design that set the optimistic tone of early planning conferences but also the establishment of boundaries between professionals and the volunteer activities that were working simultaneously for civic beautification and social reform. During later periods of centralized planning to address war, social, and economic crises, planners and associated experts directly or tangentially facilitated garden activities through technical assistance from city, state, and federal agencies. With the advent of advocacy planning in the 1960s and 1970s, planners recognized community gardens as participatory assets without necessarily addressing the implications for land use and open space planning. In the process, community gardens have come to represent a model of user-initiated open space without attention to their long-term potential in city planning. The relationship of community gardens to planning signifies boundaries between ideals of comprehensive planning and interim, local interventions. Ambiguity regarding the community garden's status as a "public good" raises important questions regarding the civic state and local responsibilities for determining open space programming at the neighborhood scale. It is an issue complexly tied to social conceptions of gardening and self-help as well as patterns and processes of urban development.

This article explores the relationship of planning to community gardens by first giving a brief historical overview of six phases of community garden promotion. This account reveals intermittent public support for community gardens in times of social and economic crisis as well as opportunistic approaches to land acquisition and implementation that help to explain the current dilemma around community gardens today.⁶ This story provides a peripheral view into the evolution of the planning through the direct and indirect policies and procedures that affect the participation and tenure of garden programs. The roles and limitations of the community garden as a public good are thus framed in larger urban development debates. The article concludes with considerations regarding the skills and approaches that planners need to sustain user-initiated community places.

Historical Overview of Community Gardens

While the history of communal land in American cities dates back to the New England town common and the plazas and mission lands of the southwest, the development of programs granting gardening space to otherwise property-less urban individuals and families dates back to at least the 1890s.⁷ Since that time, though garden location and programmatic objectives have changed, there has been a series of efforts to provide vacant land in cities for individuals, families, and organizations to garden for food, recreation,

education, and profit. Vacant lot and relief gardens during economic depressions, school and children's gardens, war and victory gardens, neighborhood gardens, and contemporary greening projects together describe a land use and programmatic medium largely ignored in the social and environmental history of American cities. At various times, federal agencies, municipalities, gardening clubs, civic groups, and charitable organizations helped to promote and implement the programs. Participation in these garden programs ranged from top-down national drives that engaged thousands of amateur gardeners; to neighborhood-based activities; to programs that specifically target immigrants, children, the unemployed, or other constituencies.

Phase One: Unemployment Relief through Vacant Lot Cultivation Associations

During the 1893-1897 depression, Detroit's progressive mayor, Hazen Pingree, proposed gardening as an alternative to charity for unemployed laborers and their families. Known as Pingree Potato Patches, the program started in 1894 on 430 acres of temporarily donated land.⁸ Under the direction of a volunteer supervisor, 945 families received quarter- to half-acre plots, seeds, and instructions written in three languages. After feeding the family, surplus produce was sold, which was reported to receive top price because of its freshness and quality. When accounts of the first year's yield showed that \$12,000 worth of produce was grown from an investment of \$3,000, skeptics became supporters and the program expanded over the next two years to eventually become mandatory for families receiving assistance from the city's poor commission. By 1895, twenty other cities including New York, Chicago, and Boston had similar garden-based poverty relief programs, either in the form of family garden plots or as cooperative farms in which workers were paid hourly or received a percentage of the sales.⁹ Typically a philanthropic group or a commission spearheaded the venture, with some assistance from city agencies in plowing, transportation, and policing. Associations used donated land with the understanding that it would be vacated quickly upon the owner's request with no liability for lost crops. Gardeners usually had to sign an agreement that included rules for maintenance and conduct and an acknowledgement that they might have to give up their plot if the owner requested its return. Most associations provided a garden supervisor who provided varying degrees of training and guidance.

Most advocates did not claim vacant lot gardening as a panacea for unemployment but considered it a useful emergency measure to help the temporarily unemployed. Gardening complemented new ideas about philanthropy and the moral development of the poor because it provided a way for people to help themselves as opposed to almsgiving and direct monetary

relief. Not only did gardening keep the unemployed busy—thereby avoiding the idleness that business leaders feared would lead to union organizing and socialism—but gardening itself was considered a positive activity that taught values associated with American agrarianism and might impel new immigrants to move out of the city and into the country.¹⁰ Furthermore, the gardens directly counteracted the visual blight of vacant land held in speculation in and around America's industrial cities.

Advocates optimistically envisioned vacant lot gardening as an effective form of temporary charitable relief, and indeed, most projects ended once industrial employment resumed and development pressure grew. One exception was the Philadelphia Vacant Lot Cultivation Association, which began in 1893 and continued until at least 1927.¹¹ Based on its successful service to the temporarily unemployed during the economic downturn, the program shifted to serve the chronically unemployed—the impaired, widowed, and elderly—and to educate immigrants and children. Relying on donated land, the project was constantly forced to seek new land at the edges of the growing city. At times gardeners lost their cultivated parcels and had to restart on new land. Even though the program received international praise for improving the conditions of the poor, no one came forward to provide permanent land as the advocates had hoped (Figure 1).¹²

Phase Two: Education through Gardening: The School Garden Movement

While most vacant lot cultivation associations advocates hoped that gardening would convey important lessons about American values to laborers and immigrants, the educational value of gardening found its greatest support when directed to children through school and extracurricular activities. The founding of the first U.S. school garden at the Putnam School in Boston in 1891 marked the beginning of a national School Garden Movement that would continue through World War I. The initial stimulus came from the nature-study movement, which sought to replace book learning with observational learning and hands-on experimentation.¹³ While citing that America was falling behind Europe in the acceptance of this educational innovation, advocates also suggested gardening as a means to address American concerns over new child labor laws, mandatory school attendance, and immigration. Gardening taught good work ethics that were deemed appropriate for the industrial capitalist society, with income from sales of produce considered more acceptable than child labor in factories. Manuals on children's gardening often stressed precision and efficiency through drill-like activities, the individualism of results, and lessons in cooperation and teamwork.¹⁴ Gardening was considered good for all children, but it was particularly appealing as a way to teach appropriate social behavior to immigrants, delinquents, and the infirm.

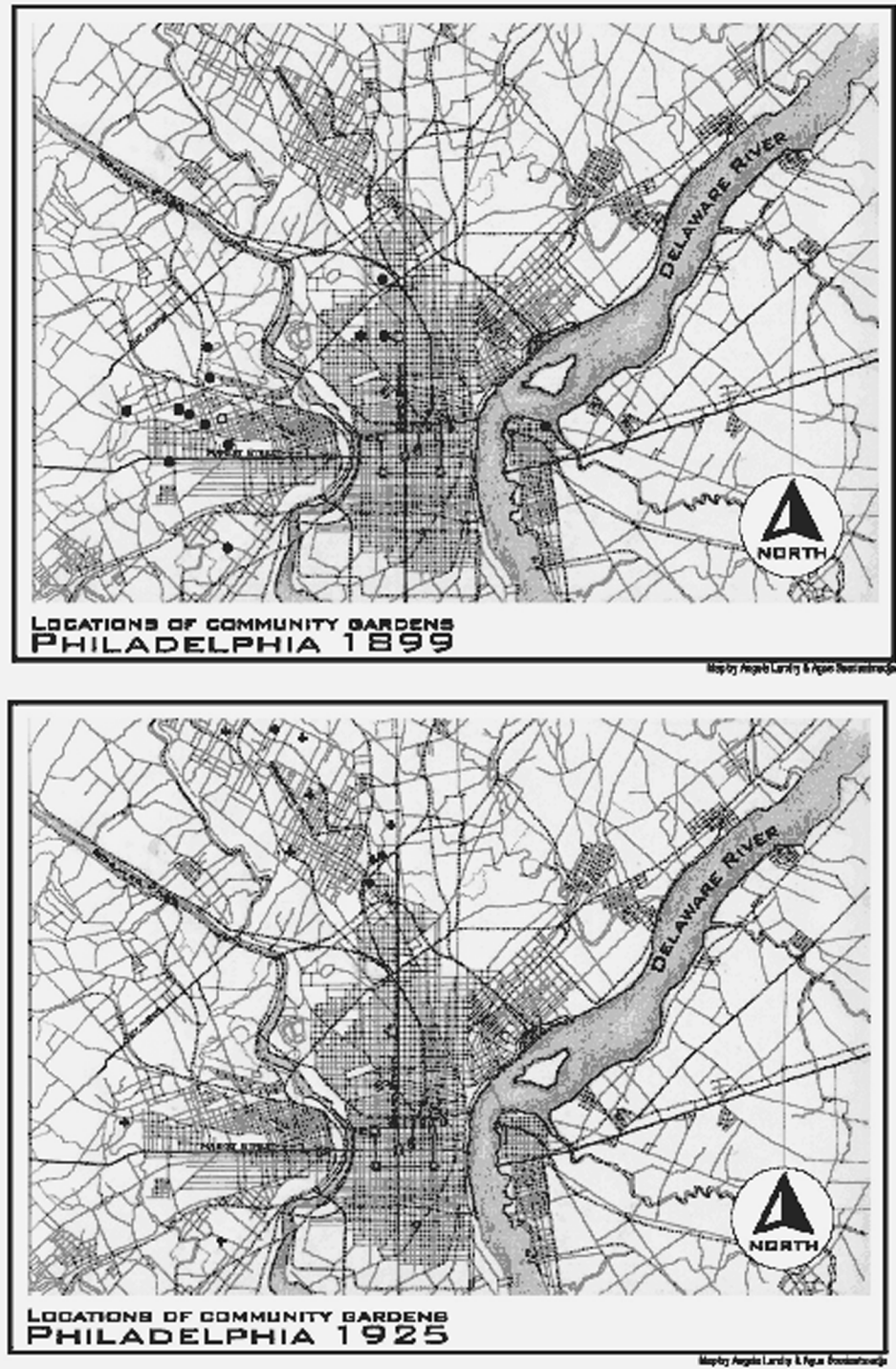


Figure 1: Comparison of Garden Locations Used by the Philadelphia Vacant Lot Cultivation Association, 1899 and 1925

Source: Drawn by Agus Soeriaatmadja and Angela Landry.

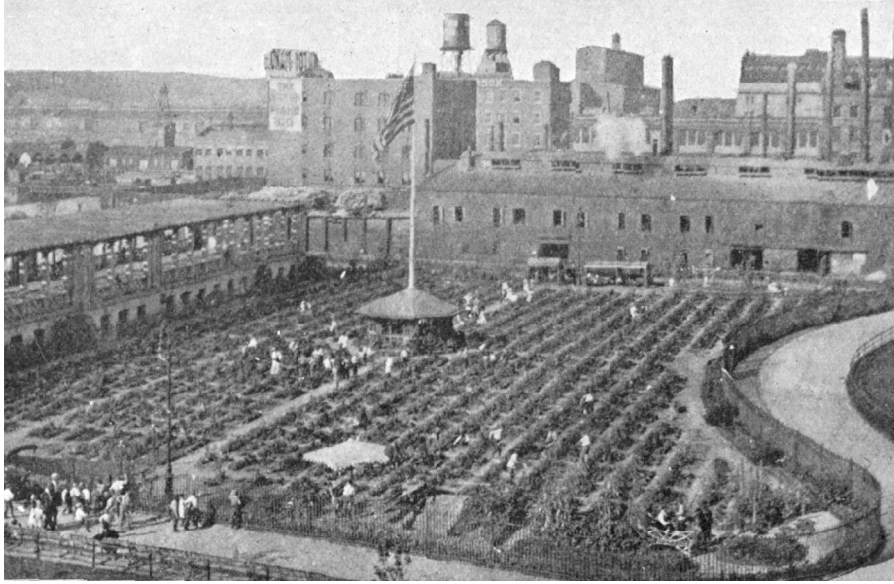


Figure 2: The DeWitt Clinton Farm School in New York

Source: Reprinted from Henry Parson, *Children's Gardens for Pleasure, Health, and Education* (New York: Sturgis and Walton Company, 1904), 29.

Note: Built in 1902 as a temporary activity until a park was built on the site. Because of the farm's popularity, a smaller version was incorporated into the park.

Because children's gardens satisfied so many different educational and civic agendas, support came from different sectors. Typically, a teacher or volunteer group would start a garden with the expectation that the local school board would see its merits and eventually accept responsibility for its upkeep and staffing. Civic improvement societies, garden clubs, and women's organizations frequently provided the initial money, land, volunteers, and materials. Besides promotion through such national organizations as the School Garden Association of America, school gardens were promoted in the literature of civic improvement and philanthropy. For instance, an 1898 report by the American Parks and Outdoor Arts Association and a later 1906 report by the American Civic Association both highlighted successful programs around the nation and suggested steps that local groups could take to start school gardens as part of town improvement.¹⁵ The movement received a substantial boost when the U.S. Bureau of Education established its own Division of Home and School Gardening, which promoted children's gardens nationally from 1914 to 1920.¹⁶

The name "school garden" implied that gardens were located on school grounds, but in fact, many were located in nearby vacant lots and parks, at other institutions, and at children's homes (Figure 2). Schools often had only enough room for demonstration gardens, and children were expected to take the lessons learned there to start gardens in their neighborhoods

and backyards. Not only did this approach provide more land, but it also served civic goals to influence home life and encourage neighborhood beautification. Through teacher and volunteer visits to these gardens, many advocates hoped to extend their influence on home life and encourage suburban living standards. By teaching gardening to the “wage earner of the future,” leaders like Dr. C. D. Jarvis, the chief of the School and Home Garden Division of the Bureau of Education, hoped to help families meet the cost of living and to promote “the advantages of a suburban home, contrasted with the crowded and unwholesome tenement.”¹⁷ The garden became a microcosm to teach children about city planning. This idea was taken to an extreme in the Worcester Good Citizens’ Factory, where the garden was laid out in a “Garden City Plan,” with streets, boulevards, squares, and even a zoo and where children elected a mayor; city council; commissioners of gardens, of streets, of tools, of water; and police officers to govern the garden community.¹⁸

To its supporters, it seemed as though the school garden would inevitably become a standard element in school curricula similar to math or home economics. The movement’s momentum was at its height when America joined World War I. As part of the war effort, the Bureau of Education restructured its program into the U.S. School Garden Army, which enlisted 1.5 million children who cultivated twenty thousand acres of previously unproductive home and vacant lots.¹⁹

Phase Three: War Garden Campaign

The United States’s entry into World War I in 1917 came at a point when Europe faced a severe food crisis. Within the volunteer conservation drive of Herbert Hoover’s Food Administration, civilian gardening was intended to supplement domestic food needs so that more food could be exported to Europe.²⁰ The war garden campaign grew into a national effort that involved government agencies, educational institutions, civic and gardening organizations, and local clubs. Oversight and support materials were provided from federal agencies such as the Food Administration, the Council of National Defense, and the Bureau of Education as well as national volunteer associations, including the Garden Club of America; national women’s clubs; and the National War Garden Commission, a private philanthropic group formed under the leadership of millionaire Charles Lathrop Pack. Newspapers, popular magazines, garden clubs, women’s associations, philanthropic groups, extension agencies, and industries produced articles and bulletins to encourage participation through success stories and how-to advice. War garden propaganda was directed at all income groups, while the act of gardening was portrayed as a democratizing experience that would put laborer and manager on equal ground. Rallying to such slogans as “hoe for liberty” and “plant for freedom,” 5 million gardeners grew \$520 million worth of food in 1918.²¹

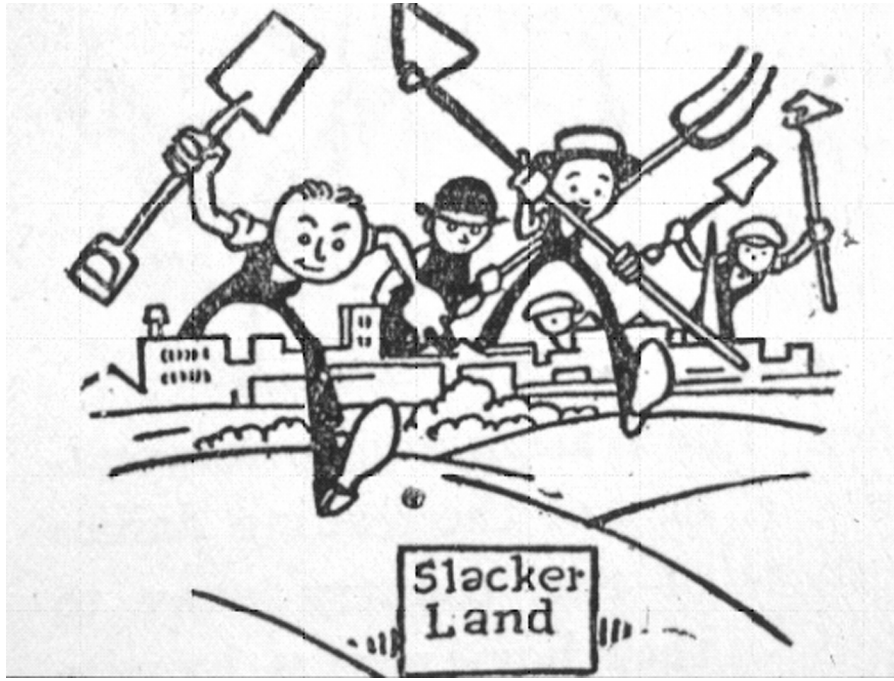


Figure 3: Cartoon from *The War Garden Victorious*

Source: Provided by the National War Garden Commission. Reprinted from Charles Lathrop Pack, *The War Garden Victorious* (Philadelphia: J.B. Lippincott Company, 1919), 174.

In the spirit of patriotism, people plowed backyards, vacant lots, municipal land, and other spaces to create food-producing gardens (Figure 3). Park staff and volunteer groups oversaw demonstration gardens in city parks and town commons. While the enthusiastic plowing under of estate gardens, parks, and golf courses for gardens symbolized patriotism, it also raised the concern of agricultural experts and landscape architects who cautioned against gardening on unproductive land or destroying mature designed landscapes.²² In many cases, experts encouraged community gardens instead of individual gardens because they reduced costs in time, labor, and equipment; provided a centralized place for training; and promoted healthy rivalry between gardeners.

As signs of the war's end approached, advocates encouraged the continued support for home and community gardens, citing their health and civic benefits and arguing that European recovery would require several more years of U.S. food imports. But with the end of fighting also came an end to the promotion and technical assistance provided by public agencies and national organizations. Not only did temporarily formed organizations disband, but preexisting gardening efforts also dwindled. Most significantly, the national movement to establish school gardens dissipated as supporting clubs and institutions moved on to new postwar interests.

Phase Four: Relief Gardens for Distraction and Subsistence

While civic improvement campaigns continued to promote vacant lot beautification and some school and community gardens continued as locally isolated ventures during the 1920s, the national impetus to start community gardens rose again as a response to the unemployment and despair of the Great Depression. Within the federal, state, and philanthropic programs that were developed to address the national unemployment problem of the 1930s, community gardening once again provided a stopgap measure that garnered public support and participation.²³ Three types of gardening programs emerged: public and philanthropic work-relief gardens that employed people to produce food that was distributed to institutions, subsistence garden programs that encouraged backyard and community gardens, and industrial gardens in which companies provided land and materials to previous employees.²⁴ A 1934 report of subsistence gardens by state reported that more than 2.3 million families participated on nearly four hundred thousand acres of land, producing food valued at more than \$36 million.²⁵ In New York State, for instance, the New York Temporary Emergency Relief Administration reported seven work relief projects that employed 850 people and sixty to sixty-five thousand subsistence gardens located in backyards, community gardens, and vacant lots. Corporations and factories, such as Goodrich Tire Company and International Harvester Company, provided garden sites for their workers to compensate for reduced hours and temporary layoffs.²⁶

In most cases, the lead organization found land and materials, provided supervision, and established rules for participants (Figure 4). Most programs served people who had applied for public assistance through relief agencies. The garden plot was part of a relief package that might also include work relief, fuel vouchers, and food supplies. Unlike other forms of relief, participants generally did not lose their plot if they later found employment. Although there were some cases of compulsory garden programs, with slogans such as "no garden, no relief," most were voluntary programs that found it necessary to encourage participation through education and contests since so many people had little experience with gardening.²⁷ Some programs provided training and equipment for canning and food preservation as well. While these programs were justified as economic relief similar to the Vacant Lot Cultivation Associations of the 1890s, they differed by prohibiting sales of surplus produce. Most programs could not justify public support that might lead to individual profit from free land and seed, while federal and state support often considered this local marketing to be unfair to truck farmers who were struggling to get good prices during the depression. In fact, the federal government ended its financial support of state relief garden programs in 1937 when it established the food stamp program for farm surplus. Garden programs were de-emphasized as the government initiated employment programs in public works and conserva-



Figure 4: Seattle's Airport Farm, Part of the U.S. Federal Emergency Relief Administration (USFERA) Work Relief Program, 1934

Source: Courtesy of Special Collections, University of Washington Libraries, UW18910.

tion projects, including substantial development of the nation's recreational systems. In some cases, local groups continued the programs without federal funds and support; however, public attention once again subsided.

Phase Five: Victory Gardens of World War II

In the fervor for action after the bombing of Pearl Harbor, leaders and citizens remembered the war garden campaign and again proposed gardening as a patriotic duty. However, whereas in World War I, food scarcity had been a concern to federal experts who urged citizens to grow food for household consumption so that farm-raised foods could be sent overseas, by the 1940s, technological improvements in agriculture and transportation—plus the instituting of food ration stamps—suggested to leaders and experts that gardening was an inefficient effort with little impact on national food security.²⁸ They did recognize, however, that gardening as part of the civilian war effort produced other benefits, namely, healthier diet, exercise, recreation, distraction from worry about loved ones in battle, and civic beautification in a time of limited mobility due to gas rationing. In this light, the



Figure 5: Victory Garden at Forest Hills, Queens, New York, 1944

Source: U.S. Office of War Information, Prints and Photographs Division, Library of Congress.

Note: Forest Hills is well known to planners as a model of the American garden suburb that was developed in 1909 by the Russell Sage Foundation.

resulting victory garden program was established as one part of a larger civilian defense program that also included recycling, canning, handicrafts, and volunteer farm work. At their most productive, victory gardens produced 42 percent of the nation's vegetable production, at an estimated value of \$1 billion (Figure 5).²⁹

Federal agencies, educational organizations, local victory garden committees, garden groups, and newspapers provided informational pamphlets and promotional material and hosted conferences and contests to encourage participation by companies, communities, and schools. In addition to community gardens on public, institutional, and industrial grounds, the victory garden program also included home gardens, school gardens, and vacant-lot gardens. Once again, organizers cautioned against the destruction of designed and planted parks or grounds or gardening in small yards and instead promoted community gardens as the most efficient form of household gardening because of the opportunity to provide supervision and education and to promote friendly rivalry.³⁰ While promotion of victory gardening subsided after the war, some of these community gardens remained. For example, the Fenway Community Garden in Boston and several gardens along Rock Creek Park in Washington, D.C., had their origins as World War II victory gardens.

Phase Six: Community Gardens and Contemporary Greening Projects

After a lull in the 1950s, a few community gardening campaigns surfaced in the 1960s, mainly as civic beautification projects organized by women's associations or garden clubs.³¹ However, the real expansion of community gardening occurred in the 1970s when volunteers started gardens as a way to counteract inflation, civic unrest, and abandoned properties and to satisfy new environmental ethics and open space needs.³² This kind of local activism dovetailed with the various rent-a-lot programs and other urban investment incentives that were being developed by state and municipal officials to address abandoned buildings, vacant lots, and sites cleared for urban renewal.³³ Garden programs like the New York City Green Guerillas (founded 1973) and Boston Urban Gardeners (founded 1977) emerged to reclaim and rebuild communities through gardening. As organizations expanded into other forms of community greening and outreach, they required staff trained in horticulture, education, and community organizing as well as financial support that was often acquired through local, state, and federal funding sources.³⁴ The growth of community gardens was furthered in 1976, when the U.S. Department of Agriculture developed the Urban Gardening Program, whereby the Agricultural Extension Service established urban offices to promote vegetable gardening in sixteen and later twenty-three cities. This program served 150,000 city gardeners and school children and grew fresh produce worth more than \$16 million until it was removed as a budget line-item in 1993.³⁵ The American Community Gardening Association (ACGA) formed in 1978 as a national forum for information exchange between the many local garden groups, citywide programs, and supporting public and nonprofit entities.

Through the 1980s to present, there has been steady interest in community gardens. The most recent ACGA survey reported 6,020 urban gardens in the responding thirty-eight cities.³⁶ Community gardens can be seen in low-income urban neighborhoods as well as gentrified sections of the city. Some gardens are started by independent groups of neighbors who want to garden on a nearby vacant lot, while others are facilitated by city agencies like Seattle P-Patch and nonprofit organizations like Garden Resources of Washington (GROW). In addition, other organizations and institutions start gardens to serve special constituencies, such as the homeless, at-risk youth, university students, or ex-convicts (Figure 6). Even though most community gardens continue to locate on abandoned, leased, or temporarily donated land, most participants intend their gardens to be permanent. ACGA survey results suggest that the main reasons for losing a garden are lack of interest by participants and loss of land to public and private owners.³⁷ Community garden organizations have addressed the first concern through increased community outreach, education, and attention to



Figure 6: Before-and-After Images of the Berkeley Youth Alternatives Garden Patch

Source: Photographs by the author.

Note: The top image is how the site looked in 1993 when the youth organization leased the land from the city for \$1 per year on a three-year renewable lease. The lower image is how the garden looked as of 1996. The organization had spent more than \$10,000 on physical improvements, including fencing, a shed, raised beds, and plants.

shifting constituent profiles and needs. The concern about land security has been a recurring topic in ACGA newsletters and conferences and has led to increased awareness by organizers of the need to build coalitions, get

involved in the city planning process, and potentially develop land trusts to secure site ownership.³⁸

Praised within Bounds: The Ambivalent Relationship between Planning and Community Gardens

As this history reveals, community gardens have been a means to achieve multiple social agendas, such as shoring the economic resiliency of the laboring class, teaching desirable social behavior, and re-visioning the urban neighborhood. The persistent attraction to the *idea* of community gardens during times of social crisis relates precisely to the garden's capacity to both encourage a broad base of participation and to achieve relatively quick results that the local community can appreciate. The ability of gardens to transform an underutilized resource—whether vacant land or volunteer labor—and to serve as a focal point for community activism is fundamental to its various incarnations. Given the values associated with gardening and the immediately tangible results, it has been a recurring tool for social reform and community activism. The resulting programs usually engage supporters who represent a range of interests, with the actual garden maintained by local participants.

Overlapping impulses have resulted in a nearly continuous presence of community gardens, and yet the resulting garden programs tend to be structured as interim activities rather than as sustained places. With few exceptions, community gardens are not legitimized as permanent public resources in the same way as parks or other recreational facilities. Perhaps this is because of the difference in maintenance responsibility and active participation that distinguish community gardens from other types of open space and civic activity.³⁹ Perhaps it is the double-edged sword of “self-help” that encourages community-scaled actions while discouraging any possible personal gain from such ventures. Both of these considerations reflect the social construction of community gardens as both public catalyst and private resource that complicate public investment. While gardening is considered good for people and communities, it is not necessarily a “public good” to be secured in the public domain. Planning has helped to concretize this construction through direct and indirect actions and neglect that have influenced leadership, location, and duration of garden programs. Not only has planning shaped the status of community gardens, but the story also reflects back to the profession to reveal three important assumptions that have shaped the profession's general approach to community gardens. First, there is a fundamental mismatch between desire for orderly urban planning and the reactionary impulse to fill vacant land with gardens that has alienated planning from such incremental gestures. Second, the personal nature of gardening has found better fit within the con-

text of household consumption than as communal resource. Third, even when community gardens are encouraged, they are considered as social actions to achieve larger goals rather than as physical entities. Each of these issues requires further elaboration in the context of planning history.

Creating Order Out of the Incremental

At the beginning of the twentieth century, the planning profession and the public alike held an environmental determinist stance that an improved physical environment resulted in stronger civic mindedness and better social behavior, particularly on the part of immigrants and laborers. If one accepts the planning profession's parentage in social reform, one would expect some gesture toward the social program ideals that influenced garden programs.⁴⁰ Indeed, gardening was often included as a positive activity, along with playgrounds and other beautification projects, in proposals for civic improvement and municipal housekeeping.⁴¹ The appropriate venue for this kind of activity, however, was generally considered the realm of voluntary associations and civic improvement societies and not of professionals.⁴² For instance, in his 1901 book, *The Improvement of Towns and Cities*, Charles Mulford Robinson not only promoted City Beautiful master plans to be developed by consulting professional designers but also suggested smaller projects for civic groups, such as planting thoroughfares, vacant lots, and school grounds.⁴³ Such projects served as catalysts to inspire larger, professionally planned projects. Likewise, in a 1904 article in *The Craftsman*, landscape architect Warren Manning proposed that local groups "inaugurate activities which little is known in their community, such as the improvement of school and home grounds, and the establishment of school gardens and playgrounds."⁴⁴ Words such as Robinson's and Manning's guided and encouraged local activism while distinguishing between those efforts that were innovative and educational—therefore requiring private investment—and those that were to be publicly funded and controlled by experts.⁴⁵ Ultimately, the success of these temporary projects prepared communities to invest in permanent improvements that would be planned and maintained by professionals.

Through the early phases of community garden promotion, this perspective framed gardening as a good temporary use of derelict land and a starting point for engagement but not necessarily a permanent public land use. Given the tendency of garden groups to opportunistically acquire land for the duration of the crisis at hand, there was no challenge to the assumption that the gardens would eventually be replaced by something else—something planned such as a park or new housing. As already mentioned, vacant lot cultivation associations often struggled to retain borrowed land and hoped for permanent sites that never materialized. While these programs could garner public support around the attractive prospects of social reform and vocational training, the public did not necessarily support the

long-term provision of land.⁴⁶ Children's school gardens struggled with the same challenge of land security, often starting on borrowed land and hoping for permanent sites once school boards or parks departments accepted responsibility for the projects. One of the model school gardens, the Children's Farm School in New York City, was started as a temporary use of land until the DeWitt Clinton Park could be built.⁴⁷ This temporary status continued with each phase of community garden promotion so that new sites had to be found each time gardening resurfaced as a local action to mitigate war, economic depression, or civic unrest. Occasionally, proposals for community gardens would surface between crises but again as a temporary use of land lying idle because of development speculation. For example, after World War I, an article in *Parks and Recreation* suggested the development of allotment gardens—to be called “garden parks”—on the urban edge as a way to hold land for later park development and ignoring the gardeners' investment of time and energy into making the sites productive in the interim.⁴⁸ In the 1970s, city officials encouraged gardening on abandoned urban lots when alternative development seemed unlikely. In most cases, it was only when the garden site was threatened by development that garden advocates began to lobby for permanence. The general silence or inattention to gardens as open space, even after the repeated reappearance of garden programs, illustrates a lack of recognition on the part of planners and officials from the early twentieth century until the 1970s to consider citizens' incremental interventions as valued permanent resources.

Designating the Communal versus the Private

Another factor in the temporary status of community gardens was the underlying assumption that gardening belonged to the home rather than the public sphere. Even though the gardens received praise for their educational and beautification capacities, they also produced harvests that individuals could consume or sell for personal gain. Gardening has been associated with private objectives because of the personal engagement required in cultivation and eventual consumption of harvested food. A 1920 editorial note in *The Park International* illustrated the contradictory attitudes about the public and private nature of gardening in discussion of a battle between a remnant war garden and the proposed development of a golf course in Washington, D.C.⁴⁹ The author questioned whether dividing a park into parcels for citizens to grow vegetables constituted a valid park activity compared to a golf course. While he acknowledged that gardening returned not only food but also exercise and sense of well-being, the author clearly discouraged the idea of gardening as public recreation and ended by stating, “Parks are not areas for market gardens for individual profit but are places of recreation, of inspiration, and enjoyment for all.”⁵⁰ Another factor influencing the private perception of gardening came from the gardeners themselves, who often fenced and locked gardens because of theft and van-

dalism concerns. Although most programs encouraged participation and rarely turned away anyone desiring a garden, the gardens themselves appeared territorialized and private. Even as late as 1986, New York City officials withdrew a plan to include a community garden in their park system because the garden would have restricted access to gardeners.⁵¹ Today, garden organizations counteract this appearance of privatization by posting regular hours of public access and hosting public events like festivals and tours. Best intentions aside, the fact remains that community gardens are user-maintained but not necessarily completely accessible to the non-gardening public.

Even though community gardens might raise debate about the nature of urban public recreation, the benefits associated with gardening found expression in proposals for residential development throughout the twentieth century. The imagery of the private garden figured in debates between regulating and retooling tenement districts or razing these districts and relocating the poor to new, comprehensively planned housing developments.⁵² Garden suburbs, industrial villages, and later greenbelt communities frequently included private home vegetable gardens and allotment gardens.⁵³ The values associated with gardening—back to nature, self-reliance, and so on—were packaged within these new communities rather than the urban neighborhood. The positive outcomes of gardening were to be satisfied as a suburban avocation rather than an urban recreation. In planning urban housing projects, more generic recreational and open spaces were provided, such as lawns and recreational courts. Although early planning proponents like Charles Mulford Robinson and Arthur Comey suggested allotment gardens along with playgrounds in the center of urban super block schemes, this idea did not persist to influence later modernist urban public housing developments.⁵⁴ It would be the task of garden activists and tenants associations to add community gardens at a later date.⁵⁵

This association of gardening with the private home was not unique to planners but imbued community garden advocacy as well, particularly in promotional materials directed to philanthropic interests. For example, in 1895, the supervisor of New York's philanthropic vacant lot association suggested that his program guided participants toward home ownership because "a citizen who owns his own home is always the best kind of citizen."⁵⁶ The ability to achieve this aim, however, was inhibited by several factors that kept people living in cities, including property costs, cultural ties to urban neighborhoods, and proximity to employment.⁵⁷ Similar connections between participation in community gardening and suburban migration were voiced at the end of World War I and World War II gardening campaigns.⁵⁸ This attitude changed in the 1970s as community gardens came to reflect neighborhood resistance to urban disinvestments while also satisfying new ideals of urban ecology and social activism. Not only did community gardens develop on vacant urban land, but they also appeared in public housing projects, public parks, and suburban communities.

Gardening as Social Action versus Physical Resource

The 1970s presented new ways for planners to consider community gardens in light of emerging concepts of advocacy planning and community open space. Rather than conceptualize planners as technicians working toward proscribed ends, advocacy planning promoted proactive attention to the particular concerns of certain social groups and neighborhoods.⁵⁹ At the same time, the concept of community open space emerged that identified the importance of user-initiated recreational spaces, with community gardens often serving as the model.⁶⁰ Community-minded residents and planners hoped that starting a garden would inspire other kinds of civic activism, such as cleaning streets, repairing houses, and neighborhood-watch programs. City agencies responded to neighborhood interests by providing equipment, technical assistance, and work crews to assist residents to start community gardens. Public programs formed in parks departments, mayors' offices, and other agencies to facilitate community gardening on a citywide scale. The success of these programs depended on the degree of community involvement. In some cases, well-intentioned public agencies built gardens only to find them underutilized, or worse, vandalized, because they did not fit neighborhood needs. For example, one well-intentioned but ultimately inefficient program was the Revival program, established in 1975 as part of the Boston Parks and Recreation Department.⁶¹ While the program doubled the number of gardens, the lack of citizen involvement in planning and poor supervision of hired contractors ultimately resulted in resentment, minimal participation, and wasted funds. Experiences like this helped city agencies and other interest groups to recognize the importance of engaging local residents and working with established neighborhood organizations that could sustain participation.

The association of community gardens to social activism has continued to influence strategies for community development, particularly in low-income, depopulating neighborhoods. Wherever vacant or underutilized land mars the image of a healthy community, someone or some agency suggests building community gardens. And as in the past, the community garden is associated with multiple far-reaching benefits, including environmental restoration, community food security, economic development, public health, and cultural expression.⁶² Often, the community garden is conceived as a first step, one that is relatively inexpensive compared to meeting larger community goals, such as building new housing, attracting employment, or addressing the legal issues of environmental injustices. Stories of empowerment from the experience of creating a garden out of nothing continue to inspire residents, activists, and professions. While appreciation for a garden's ability to transform the physical appearance of a community and to serve as part of a larger strategy of community development spurs sincere efforts, those inspired nevertheless often gloss over

the commitment required to sustain the garden as a community resource in and of itself.

To some participants, the community garden remains simply a *place* to grow food, to meet neighbors, or to recreate. Some assurance of sustained return on investment is necessary for individuals to commit the sweat and labor that is required to transform an infertile, trash-filled lot into a productive garden. Vacant property might present the opportunity of gardening space, but such urban sites are frequently mired with back taxes, liens, and other bureaucratic obstacles that make it difficult for garden groups to assess whether their investment in the site is secure. The persistence of the project is also influenced by the local economic and political climate. In cases of supportive municipalities, gardens on city-owned lots may be protected as open space. In Boston, for instance, the loss of one garden site for housing in 1986 presented a wake-up call to the redevelopment agency, which worked with garden organizations to preserve garden sites as part of a neighborhood planning process, so that today several nonprofit organizations hold deeds to many of the community garden sites.⁶³ But as the earlier description of New York reveals, other cities have not legitimized community gardens as part of the open space system. A few cities, such as Seattle and Denver, include gardens in their open space planning, but most do not have overall policies for garden preservation.⁶⁴ While many city documents include supportive language to encourage community gardens, this ultimately has no teeth to protect gardens in development controversies.

Conclusion: Sharing the Risks and Enjoying the Benefits

Thus the paradox is revealed. The persistence of the desire to create community gardens justifies consideration of communal gardening as a public good worthy of long-term public investment. Yet even the most supportive planner faces hurdles in promoting community gardens. To designate a green square on a plan as "community garden" embraces the idealism of "if you build it, they will come" and does not address the control needed by those who are expected to maintain it. The creation of a successful community garden requires more than dirt and gardeners; it also requires organization, outreach, and clear understanding of the site's future. For a community garden to flourish requires not only a healthy site but also the commitment of participants, and for both gardener and planner, risks are inherent. The gardener invests his or her sweat equity for tangible and intangible personal and social benefits, often without assurance of how long the garden will exist. The planner, who is responsible to the public interest, may forgo options for future development in support of local interest in gardening, even if future participation remains an unknown variable. Even when community gardens are recognized as useful public investments,

their grassroots nature denies control, and thus they often elude the planner's map.

Historic boundaries still determine the relationship of planning to community gardens today. Because community gardens are conceptualized as both public resource and private investment, they require a different approach to public support than other types of open space that can be managed by the city for a generic public. And because the garden signifies both place and action, the considerations of site and participation cannot be separated. As history shows, community gardens and other user-initiated places require simultaneous top-down and user support. The notion that community gardens are grassroots efforts needs to be revised to acknowledge the resources and advocacy needed from multiple sources, including governmental and nongovernmental as well as local, state, and national.

To address the divergent concerns, collaborative partnerships are required that balance the participatory, evolving nature of user-initiated spaces like community gardens with the long-term vision and structure of planning. This is a mutually beneficial dialogue that bridges neighborhood and special interests with the more comprehensive public planning perspective while also engaging planners in dialogues about specific neighborhood needs and assets. The planners' involvement may counteract the tendency of garden activists to accept short-term opportunities if the goal is garden permanence and stability. Planners and officials can expedite ownership procedures to encourage land trusts and ownership of sites. Forming coalitions also brings everyone to the table, including gardeners, supporting organizations, and planning agencies, to form a stronger, more coherent voice for lobbying and encouraging public investment and commitment to community efforts. Just as the garden itself requires constant attention and nurture, so too does the concept of the community garden. The more people who watch out for its health, the more likely it is that we will all be able to enjoy the harvest of multiple benefits that community gardens can bring.

Notes

1. Most Operation GreenThumb leases were \$1 per year with a thirty-day cancellation notice. In 1984, it developed a five-year lease option for gardens appraised under \$20,000 and at a higher rent of between \$120 and \$360 per month. In 1987, the eligibility limits were increased to \$35,000, and rents stabilized at \$120 regardless of appraised value. The long-term lease program ended in 1995 when GreenThumb was moved from the Department of General Services to the Department of Parks and Recreation. Even as the Parks Department began a review to see about preserving some gardens as city park land, leases were transferred to Department of Housing Preservation and Development. Over the next five years, several gardens were designated as park land while others lost their lease agreements for development. See Jane Weissman, "The City Perspective," *Journal of Community Gardening* 6, no. 3 (Fall 1987): 10-1. Additional information was obtained through an interview with Lenny Librizzi, assistant director, Open Space Greening, Council On the Environment of New York City (April 15, 1999). For a review of the New York community garden crisis, see Diane Englander, *New York's Community Gardens—A Resource at Risk* (New York: Trust for Public Land, n.d.).

2. Mayor Giuliani was reported to have taunted protesters by stating, "This is a free market economy. Welcome to the era after communism." See Michael Gunwalk, "Mayor Giuliani Holds a Garden Sale," *Washington Post*, May 12, 1999, A1.

3. The notion that gardens are simultaneously idea, place, and action is addressed in the introduction to Mark Francis and Randolph T. Hester Jr., eds., *The Meaning of Gardens* (Cambridge, MA: MIT Press, 1990).

4. The social and personal benefits of gardening are validated through horticultural therapy research as well as anecdotal accounts and case studies. Although written more than twenty-five years ago, the most cited source for description of the psychological benefits of gardening is Rachel Kaplan, "Some Psychological Benefits of Gardening," *Environment and Behavior* 5 (1973): 143-62. Others have looked at community gardens as sites of cultural identity, such as Luis Aponte-Pares, "Casitas: Place and Culture: Appropriating Place in Puerto Rican Barrios," *Places* 11, no. 1 (1997): 54-61. For case studies and descriptive accounts, see Diane Balmori and Margaret Morton, *Transitory Gardens, Uprooted Lives* (New Haven, CT: Yale University Press, 1993); and Patricia Hynes, *A Patch of Eden: America's Inner City Gardeners* (White River Junction, VT: Chelsea Green, 1996).

5. Given that the history of community gardens starts before the first planning conference in 1909, and given the breadth of experts and officials involved in city planning, I use a very broad definition of the planning profession to include contributions of individuals from related fields, such as landscape architecture, architecture, engineering, and social work, as well as the contributions of city officials. Many of the federal, state, and municipal agencies that are mentioned in this article employed planners and/or engaged in planning activities.

6. A thorough history of community gardens is provided in my upcoming book, *City Bountiful: A Century of Community Gardens in America* (Berkeley: University of California Press [expected 2005]). Also see Thomas Bassett, "Reaping on the Margins: A Century of Community Gardening in America," *Landscape* 25, no. 2 (1981): 1-8; and Sam Bass Warner, *To Dwell Is to Garden: A History of Boston's Community Garden* (Boston: Northeastern University Press, 1989).

7. Data for this historical overview were collected from longitudinal reviews of professional journals, proceedings from annual conferences, special interest journals, and popular magazines, including *Charities Review*, *The Proceedings of the National Conference on City Planning*, *Proceedings of the Parks and Outdoor Art Association*, *Landscape Architecture Magazine*, *Garden and Forest*, *Parks and Recreation*, *Journal of the American Planning Association*, *Nature-Study Review*, *Annual Reports of the American School Gardening Association*, *The Craftsman*, *American City*, and *Garden Magazine*. Other sources include bulletins, pamphlets, and reports by public agencies, philanthropic groups, and individuals. Because many of these have not been entered into computerized catalogs, it is necessary to search old card catalogs and indexes. One of the best sources is the *Dictionary Catalog of the National Agricultural Library, 1862-1965*.

8. "Detroit Plan for the Cultivation of Waste Land," *Annals of the American Academy of Political and Social Science* 6 (1895): 206-7.

9. For summaries of various projects around the nation, see Association for Improving the Conditions of the Poor (New York), "Cultivation of Vacant City Lots by the Unemployed," *AICP Notes* 1, no. 1 (December 1895); and Frederick W. Speirs, Samuel McCune Lindsay, and Franklin B. Kirkbride, "Vacant Lot Cultivation," *Charities Review* 8, no. 1 (March 1898): 74-107.

10. "Back to the land" advocates frequently cited vacant lot cultivation and other gardening programs as a way to shift population out of the city to the country. An example is Bolton Hall, *Three Acres and Liberty* (New York: Grosset and Dunlap, 1907).

11. Philadelphia Vacant Lot Cultivation Association, *Annual Reports*, vols. 2-21, 25-31 (1893-1917, 1921-1927).

12. In annual reports, the supervisor of the Philadelphia Vacant Lots Cultivation Association mentioned lectures and exhibits presented around the country and worldwide. Its 1904 report claimed credit for advancing the allotment-garden movement in Europe. See Philadelphia Vacant Lot Cultivation Association, *Annual Report*, 1904, 17.

13. Information on children's gardens was collected from government bulletins by the U.S. Department of Agriculture and the U.S. Department of the Interior's Bureau of Education, *Nature-Study Review* (1905-1923) and the *Proceedings from the School Garden Association of America* (1912-1916). A thoughtful description is provided by Brian Trelstad in "Little Machines in Their Gardens: A History of School Gardens in America," *Landscape Journal* 16, no. 2 (Fall 1997): 161-73.

14. Examples of school garden books include M. Louise Greene, *Among School Gardens* (New York: Russell Sage Foundation, 1910); Louise Klein Miller, *Children's Gardens for School and Home: A Man-*

ual of Cooperative Gardening (New York: D. Appleton and Company, 1904); and Henry Griscom Parsons, *Children's Gardens for Pleasure, Health, and Education* (New York: Sturgis and Walton Company, 1910).

15. For examples of articles that praised gardening, see Mrs. Robert Pratt, "Improvement of School Surroundings and the Work of the Minneapolis Improvement League," and Edwin Shuey, "Outdoor Art and Workingmen's Homes," both in the American Parks and Outdoor Arts Association, *Annual Report 1898*, 100-104, 112-23. Also see Dick Crosby, *Children's Gardens: Prospectus of the Department* (Philadelphia: American Civic Association, 1906).

16. For a description of the federal program and its approach to school gardening, see C. D. Jarvis, *Gardening in Elementary Schools* (Washington, DC: Government Printing Office, 1916). The Bureau also produced circulars, such as *Instructions for School-Supervised Home Gardens*, *Course in Vegetable Gardening for Teachers*, *Winter Vegetable Gardens*, *A Suggestive Schedule for Home-Garden Work in the South*, *List of Publications for Use of School Home-Garden Teachers*, and *School Home Garden Results of 1916*.

17. Jarvis, *Gardening in Elementary Schools*, 10.

18. See R. J. Floody, "Worcester Garden City Plan: Or the Good Citizens' Factory," *Nature-Study Review* 8, no. 4 (April 1912): 145-50. A similar "Garden City" was established at the University of California for Berkeley School children. See Cyril Stebbins, "Growing Children in California Gardens," *Nature-Study Review* 8, no. 2 (February 1912): 67-74.

19. J. H. Francis, *The United States School Garden Army [Bulletin 26, Advance Sheets from the Biennial Survey of Education in the United States, 1916-1918]* (Washington, DC: Government Printing Office, 1919), 3.

20. For an overview of the world food situation at the beginning of World War I, see "The World's Food," *Annals of the American Academy of Political and Social Science* 74 (November 1917).

21. The high number of participants was frequently cited to spur more participation; however, it was not stated how these data were collected and how the economic equivalency of produce was estimated. See Charles Lathrop Pack, *The War Garden Victorious* (Philadelphia: J. B. Lippincott, 1919), 23.

22. See Charles Downing Lay, "Food Production in War Time," *Landscape Architecture Magazine* 7, no. 3 (April 1918): 151-2. In general, the professional landscape architecture and planning journals included very few articles that directly addressed the war garden campaign.

23. In 1932, the U.S. Department of Commerce produced the report, *Subsistence Gardens: Some Brief Reports on Industrial, Community and Municipal Projects Prepared from Reports Received from States and Local Communities* (Washington, DC: Government Printing Office, 1932). Also see Joanna C. Colcord and Mary Johnston in *Community Programs for Subsistence Gardens* (New York: Russell Sage Foundation, 1933).

24. The U.S. Department of Commerce report, *Subsistence Garden*, p. 2, distinguishes five types of subsistence gardens: private plots or backyard gardens, vacant lot gardens, community plots divided into individual gardens, industrial gardens, and community gardens not divided into individual gardens and often used as work relief.

25. Ernest J. Wolfe, *Industrial and Agricultural Work Relief Projects in the United States: A Report Submitted to the (New York) Governor's Commission on Unemployment Relief* (1935). For information on New York State, see p. 15. The numbers provided in the Wolfe report differ from those reported by the U.S. Federal Emergency Relief Administration (USFERA). According to USFERA, in 1934 there were over 1.8 million subsistence gardens on 328,456 acres in forty-three states, although it is unclear how many of these were backyard versus community gardens. See USFERA, *The Emergency Work Relief Program of the FERA* (Washington, DC: Government Printing Office, 1935).

26. For a good example of industry-sponsored community gardening, see B. F. Goodrich Company, *Industrial Cooperative Gardening: The Story of a Cooperative Farm Plan* (Akron, OH: B.F. Goodrich Company, 1933).

27. The issue of mandatory versus volunteer garden programs was discussed by Joanna C. Colcord and Mary Johnston in *Community Programs for Subsistence Garden*, 27; and in U.S. FERA, *The Emergency Work Relief Program of the FERA*, 58.

28. A National Garden Conference was called just twelve days after the attack on Pearl Harbor. The results were summarized by the U.S. Office of Civilian Defense in *Guide for Planning the Local Victory Garden Program* (Washington, DC: Government Printing Office, n.d.). A general information pamphlet that described agricultural efficiencies and what citizens could do for the war effort was prepared by the Office of Program Coordination, Office of War Information, and Office of Price Administration in cooperation with the War Food Administration, titled *Food Fights for Freedom* (Washington, DC: Government

Printing Office, 1943). For a comparison of World War I and II food supply considerations, see Maxey Robson Dickson, *The Food Front in World War I* (Washington, DC: American Council on Public Affairs, 1944): 181-5.

29. See James H. Burdett, "Home Gardeners Contribute to America's Food Supply," in *Gardening for Victory: A Digest of Proceedings of the National Victory Garden Conference* (New York: National Victory Garden Institute, 1943), 13.

30. For an example of the common promotion of community gardens, see Warren Mack, Helen Marshall Eliason, and Pauline Mack, *Victory Gardens: Handbook of the Victory Garden Committee, War Services, Pennsylvania State Council of Defense*, April 1944, 57.

31. A model program was the Neighborhood Garden Association in Philadelphia. See Louise Bush-Brown, *Garden Blocks for Urban America* (New York: Scribner, 1969).

32. For descriptions of early programs, reasons to start community gardens, and how-to advice, see Mary Lee Coe, *Growing with Community Gardens* (Taftsville, VT: Countryman Press, 1978); Jamie Jobb, *The Complete Book of Community Gardening* (New York: William Morrow, 1979); and Larry Sommers, *The Community Garden Book* (Burlington, VT: Gardens for All, 1984).

33. Community garden advocates encouraged neighborhood groups and organizations to acquire land through such adopt-a-lot programs. See the description of St. Louis's program in Ann Rackers, "The Municipal Land and Reutilization Law," *ACGA Journal* 2, no. 2 (Summer 1983): 4. This program provided two hundred garden sites in 1983 on yearly leases that could be renewed if a bid of purchase was not submitted. The adopt-a-lot program in Syracuse, New York, was described in Sommers, *Community Garden Book*, 13.

34. For an indicative list of federal funding sources available in the late 1970s, see Jobb, *The Complete Book of Community Gardening*, 55-65. Quite a few organizations used funds made available through the Comprehensive Employment and Training Act (CETA) and later the Community Development Block Grant Program (CDBG). Some organizations filled staff positions through national service programs, such as Action and Vista.

35. See David Malakoff, "Final Harvest for the Urban Greening Program?" *Community Greening Review* 4 (1994): 4-12.

36. American Community Gardening Association (ACGA), *National Community Gardening Survey* (Philadelphia, June 1998). This monograph is based on a survey conducted in 1996 by Suzanne Monroe-Santos as part of her thesis requirement for a master's of science degree in community development, University of California, Davis. Additional information on current programs was collected through interviews, mailed questionnaires, review of promotional materials, and site visits.

37. ACGA, *National Community Gardening Survey*, 3.

38. The topic of garden permanence was the focus of the second publication of the *ACGA Journal* in May 1982 and again in 1987 and 2000. The Trust for Public Land purchased a garden site in Oakland, California, in 1977. See Jamie Jobb, "Long Term Community Trusts and Permanent Gardens," *Brooklyn Botanical Garden Record/Plants and Gardens* 35, no. 1 (Spring 1979): 27-31. More recent examples of land trusts include the Neighborhood Garden Association/A Philadelphia Land Trust, established 1986, and NeighborSpace in Chicago, established 1996. Coalition building and partnership with local government agencies is included in the recent ACGA publication, *Growing Communities Curriculum*, eds. Jeanette Abi-Nader and David Buckley (Philadelphia: ACGA, 2001).

39. See Mark Francis, "Some Different Meanings Attached to a City Park and Community Gardens," *Landscape Journal* 6, no. 2 (Fall 1987): 101-12.

40. In *American Planning since 1890* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1969), Mel Scott describes planning as evolving from social reform interests in the late nineteenth century. Susan Wirka distinguishes the split between social reform and planning through her study of the role of women reformers in the formation of the National Conference on City Planning. See Susan Wirka, "The City Social Movement," in Mary Corbin Sies and Christopher Silver, eds., *Planning the 20th Century American City* (Baltimore: John Hopkins Press, 1996). In *Dreaming the Rational City* (Cambridge, MA: MIT Press, 1983), M. Christine Boyer's hypothesis that planning assumed an advisory role to negotiate public and development interests suggests that gardening never entered planning discourse because it was not of value to development interests.

41. For a discussion of how park planning and design was influenced by social concerns, see Galen Cranz, *The Politics of Park Design* (Cambridge, MA: MIT Press, 1989). Similarly, for playgrounds, see Dominick Cavallo, *Muscles and Morals: Organized Playgrounds and Urban Reform, 1880-1920* (Philadelphia: University of Philadelphia Press, 1981). The relationship of playgrounds to community gardens is especially interesting in light of the coevolving school garden movement. See Joseph Lee, "Play as

Landscape," *Charity and the Commons* 16, no. 14 (July 7, 1906): 427-94; Henry S. Curtis, "Nature in the School Playgrounds," *The Craftsman* 29, no. 2 (November 1915): 221-23.

42. The parallel functions of professional and voluntary spheres is discussed in Jon Peterson, "The City Beautiful Movement: Forgotten Origins and Lost Meanings," *Journal of Urban History* 2 (August 1976): 415-34; and Bonj Szczygiel, "'City Beautiful' Revisited: An Analysis of 19th Century Civic Improvement Efforts," *Journal of Urban History* 29, no. 2 (January 2003): 107-32.

43. Charles Mulford Robinson, *The Improvement of Towns and Cities* (New York: Putnam, 1901).

44. Warren Manning, "The History of Village Improvement in the United States," *The Craftsman* 5, no. 5 (February 1904): 423-32, quote p. 432.

45. This distinction between volunteer and professional also had gender dimensions, which can be seen in the leadership taken by women's organizations in the promotion of school gardens and other beautification efforts. I have written about this in "A Woman Has a Feeling about Dirt Which Men Only Pretend to Have: Women and the Civic Gardening Campaigns of the Progressive Era" (presented at the Century of Women: Evaluating Gender in Landscape Architecture Conference, Berkeley, 2003 [submitted as part of a book project under that same name]).

46. This was illustrated in three letters to the editor that responded to an 1896 *Garden and Forest* article about vacant lot cultivation associations; while two praised the educational and agricultural merits of such ventures, the third raised concern that that providing communal space for gardening created a precedent for free access to land that would amount to land confiscation. See "Farming on Vacant City Lots," *Garden and Forest* 9 (March 4, 1896): 91-2. Letters to the editor were written by Luther G. Sand, Stephen Bell, and Gregory Smith, *Garden and Forest* 9 (April 1, 1896): 139.

47. The Children's Farm School was established in 1902 by Fannie Griscom Parsons, a member of the school board. The site, at 53rd St. between 11th and 12th Avenues, had been a dumping ground and truck storage facility. The popularity of the farm school ultimately resulted in a smaller school garden being added to the park design. The last record of the Farm School was in 1908. Today, the park is a recreational facility with no remnants to suggest the garden, although the Clinton Community Garden, started in 1978 at 48th between 9th and 10th, is nearby. For information on the Clinton DeWitt Garden, see Fannie Griscom Parsons, *The First Children's Farm School in New York City, 1902, 1903, 1904* (New York: DeWitt Clinton Farm School, 1904).

48. Wilfred E. Chase, "Garden Parks," *Parks and Recreation* 1, no. 3 (April 1918): 28.

49. George Burnap, ed., "Gardens or Golf, a Mock Issue," *Park International*, 1, no. 3 (November 1920): 266-9.

50. *Ibid.*, 268.

51. "City Officials Delay Adding Locked Park," *New York Times*, November 21, 1986, B3:1.

52. This was illustrated in the presentations by Lawrence Veiller and Raymond Unwin at the 1911 National Conference on Planning in Philadelphia. See Lawrence Veiller, "Buildings in Relation to Street and Site," and Raymond Unwin's response in *Proceedings of the Third National Conference on City Planning* (Boston: University Press, 1911): 80-107.

53. Gardening was included in the concept for Billerica Garden Suburb by Arthur Comey and Warren Manning. See Arthur Comey, "Billerica Garden Suburb," *Landscape Architecture* 4, no. 4 (July 1914): 145-9. In supporting the concept of private back yards, Arthur Comey suggests the need to educate people in gardening. See Arthur Comey, "Neighborhood Centers," in John Nolen, ed., *City Planning* (New York: D. Appleton and Company, 1916): 117-38. Also see Michael H. Lang, "The Design of Yorkship Garden Village," in *Planning the Twentieth Century American City* (see note 40), 120-44; and Graham Romeyn Taylor, *Satellite Cities: A Study of Industrial Suburbs* (New York: D. Appleton and Company, 1915).

54. See Charles Mulford Robinson, *City Planning* (New York: Putnam, 1916), 197; and Comey, *Neighborhood Centers*, 124.

55. In 1962, the New York Housing Authority started the Tenant Garden Contest to promote beautification and gardening activities. See Charles Lewis, "Public Housing Gardens—Landscapes for the Soul," *Landscape for Living: Yearbook of Agriculture, United States Department of Agriculture* (Washington, DC: Government Publications, 1972): 277-82. The program received praise and was replicated in other cities, including Chicago. Currently, the San Francisco League of Urban Gardeners (SLUG) has several community garden projects on public housing grounds.

56. Association for Improving the Conditions of the Poor (New York), "Cultivation of Vacant City Lots by the Unemployed," 20.

57. Most planners assumed that people wanted to move out of crowded tenements. A different opinion was offered by Mary Kingsbury Simkhovitch in her presentation at the first National Planning Con-

ference on City Planning. See *Proceedings of the First National Conference on City Planning*, Washington, DC: May 21-22, 1909 (reprinted by the American Society of Planning Officials, 1967, Chicago), 101-4.

58. At the close of World War I, many advocates shifted to promotion of gardening as part of home ownership. As an illustration, see "America a Nation of Gardeners," *Garden Magazine* 29, no. 2 (March 1919): 76. As World War II came to a close, the National Victory Garden Institute, a group formed to encourage industrial companies to support victory gardening, proposed to continue to promote gardening as an integral part of a higher standard of living for the nation, especially as part of the estimated 5 million new homes proposed in postwar development. See *Gardengram* 2, no. 1 (February 1946): 1.

59. See Paul Davidoff, "Advocacy and Pluralism in Planning," *Journal of the American Institute of Planners* 32, no. 4 (November 1965): 331-8.

60. See Tom Fox, Ian Koeppel, and Susan Kellam, *Struggle for Space: The Greening of New York City, 1970-1984* (New York: Neighborhood Space Coalition, 1985); and Mark Francis, Lisa Casdan, and Lynn Paxson, *Community Open Spaces* (Washington, DC: Island Press, 1984). To illustrate the advocacy role played by planners and designers in the 1970s and 1980s, see Carl Linn, "Urban Barn-Raising: Building Community through Environmental Restoration," *Earth Island Journal* (Spring 1990): n.p.; and Randolph T. Hester Jr., *Planning Neighborhood Space with People*, 2nd ed. (New York: Van Nostrand Reinhold, 1984).

61. The Revival program is discussed in Warner, *To Dwell Is to Garden: A History of Boston's Community Gardens* (Boston: Northeastern University Press, 1987): 28-9; and Coe, *Growing with Community Gardens*, 57-69. Information was also provided through an interview with former Boston Urban Garden Director Charlotte Kahn (April 13, 1999).

62. Some recent examples suffice to show how community gardens are often included as one of several citizen-based actions to achieve various community development ends. Community gardens are included in planning for food security in Kameshwari Pothukuchi, "The Food System: A Stranger to the Planning Field," *Journal of the American Planning Association* 66, no. 3 (Spring 2000): 342-6, see p. 120. For a discussion that includes community gardens as expressions of citizen action and beautification, see Meg Maguire, Ray Foote, and Frank Vespe, "Beauty as Well as Bread," *Journal of the American Planning Association* 63, no. 3 (Summer 1997): 317-28, see p. 325. Community gardens are also included in discussions of urban ecology and city greening, as in Emery Roe and Micahel van Eeten, "The Heart of the Matter: A Radical Proposal," *Journal of the American Planning Association* 61, no. 1 (Winter 2001): 92-7, see p. 95.

63. As of 1999, the Boston Natural Areas Fund, founded 1977, owned thirty community gardens in Roxbury, Dorchester, Jamaica Plain, and East Boston; Boston Urban Gardeners, founded 1977, owned nine properties and planned to buy two more; the Southend/Lower Roxbury Open Space Land Trust, founded 1991, owned eight community gardens and pocket parks; and the Dorchester Gardenlands Preserve and Development Corporation, founded 1977, owned nine sites. See Garden Futures, "Rooted in Our Neighborhoods: A Sustainable Future for Boston's Community Gardens: A Report of Garden Futures," (1997, loose-leaf report). This information was verified by Elizabeth Johnson, director of Garden Futures, Boston (interview, April 13, 1999).

64. The ACGA survey conducted in 1996 listed Madison, Philadelphia, Portland (Oregon), Seattle, Somerville, and Austin as including community gardens in city plans. See ACGA, *National Community Gardening Survey*, 3. An unpublished study of municipal support for community gardens was conducted by Kendall Dunnigan of the Berkeley Community Gardening Collaborative in 1996 that listed Denver, Trenton, Asheville, Dayton, and Providence. For a discussion of various strategies, see Pamela R. Kirschbaum, "Making Policy in a Crowded World: Steps Beyond the Physical Garden," *Community Greening Review* 10 (2000): 2-11.

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